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Abstract

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1 Introduction

[This is only a skeleton of the intro] Much of the world knowledge can be expressed in terms of relations, but oftentimes such relations are graded, implied, and nonliteral. Such kind of implicit inference of event relations is common in human language processing... (cite) Talk about eliciture and why its implied relationships between any two events are non-mandated. (cite)

Previous studies have attempted to show how LMs can build a world model through pragmatic inference... (cite) To the best of our knowledge, Pan & Kehler is the only work that examines LM's ability to perform eliciture inference. They demonstrate that LMs not only draw eliciture but also leverage eliciture to guide downstream sentential processing. we aim to extend on their findings by evaluating models of different families and studying the internal representations of implicit causal inference.

The benefits of understanding elicitors in LMs are multifold: 1. whether LMs–trained with distributional objective–demonstrate human-like nonliteral inference in non-mandated setting 2. more comprehensive views into how LMs build an internal world model 3. Potentially understand the implicit bias in LMs, which has implications in safety and alignment

To these aims, we explore three main questions:

RQ1 *Do model behaviors reflect inferences about implicit causal relationships within sentences?*
RQ2 *Do LMs form internal representations of implicit causal relationships?*
RQ3 *If **RQ2** is true, do representations of implicit causality generalize to naturalistic settings with potential real-world implications?*

Our contribution is...

2 Background

3 Experiments

3.1 Measuring Implicit Causal Inference through Model Behaviors

Models. In all experiments, we test Gemma 2 2B/9B [Gemma Team, 2024], Qwen3 4B/8B [Qwen Team, 2025], Llama 3.2 3B [Meta AI, 2024], and Llama 3 8B [Dubey et al., 2024] base checkpoints.

Dataset. The dataset tests whether models represent implicit causal relationships. It is comprised of minimal pairs of sentences following the format of [person] [modifier/relative clause] [outcome]. In the critical sentence, [modifier/relative clause] provides a plausible cause of [outcome] based on physical or everyday world knowledge; in the *control* sentence, [modifier/relative clause] provides an incidental detail. For example, *The executive who falsified quarterly revenue figures was fired* is

Submitted to 40th Conference on Neural Information Processing Systems (NeurIPS 2026). Do not distribute.

paired with *The executive who wore a blue silk tie was fired.* We use 150 manually authored pairs of sentences.

Yes/No. We first present the sentences of [person] [modifier/relative clause] [outcome] as context and then ask, "Does [modifier/relative clause] explain why [outcome]?" We compute the probabilities of the complete answers *Yes* and *No*, including capitalization variants, and normalize them to obtain $P(\text{Yes})$.

7-point Likert. We present sentences of [person] [modifier/relative clause] [outcome] as context and then ask how strongly the [modifier/relative clause] explains the [outcome] on a scale from 1 (definitely not) through 4 (uncertain) to 7 (definitely yes). We compute a probability for each of the seven complete answers and use their probability-weighted mean as the model's rating.

Surprisal. Following Pan and Kehler [2025], we remove the sentence-final period and append *", and I don't know why."* to the end of a tested sentence. We use the surprisal of this continuation as the score. The intuition is that if [modifier/relative clause] has already supplied an explanation, subsequently claiming *I don't know why* should be less expected and therefore more surprising.

For all three measures, paired accuracy is the proportion of pairs in which the critical sentence scores strictly above its control (by rating or surprisal); chance is .5, ties count as incorrect. The complete prompts, scoring equations, and a worked critical/control example are given in Appendix A.

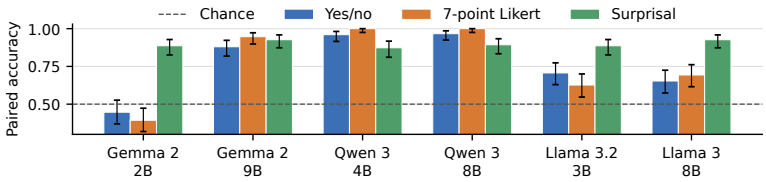


Figure 1: Paired accuracy of model judgments on implicit causal inference items, comparing Yes/No prompting, 7-point likert rating, and the surprisal of the continuation *", and I don't know why."* Higher accuracy indicates better performance in implicit causality inferences.

Results. As shown in Figure 1, models demonstrate implicit causal inference most consistently through surprisals. Not all models can faithfully report their implicit causal inference through Yes/No and 7-Point Likert rating, and the performance of such metalinguistic causal inference increases with model size.

3.2 Identifying Internal Representations of Implicit Causality Inference

Given that LMs behaviorally demonstrate implicit causal inference, do LMs form internal representations of implicit causality? Specifically, we ask two questions:

1) Do model activations distinguish implicit causal relationships from other relations? If a representation is specific to causality, a causal direction should separate causal pairs well but transfer less reliably to occasional or plausibility pairs.

2) If such representations exist, could the representations of cross-sentence implicit causality transfer to within-sentence causality? Within-sentence causal inferences through relative clauses or modifiers are less strong and mandated compared to cross-sentence causal inferences. If the representation of implicit causality inference is robust, the representation should transfer across syntactic variations.

Datasets. We use three datasets of matched critical/control pairs:

1) *Causal*: We extend the implicit causality dataset in subsection 3.1 by splitting [person] [modifier/relative clauses][outcome] into two sentences separated by "." or ";". The first sentence describes the outcome, and the second sentence is either an incidental detail or a potential explanation. For example, *Anika avoided the Amber Cafe. The Amber Cafe repeatedly mixed up Anika's allergy order* is the critical item; replacing the second sentence with *The Amber Cafe had a copper sign* creates the control. There are however many train/id dev set, followed by however many within-sentence test set already introduced in subsection 3.1.

2) *Occasion*: This dataset tests whether an event is compatible with a typical occasion for a given [person]. The sentences follow the structure of [person] [outcome]. An example critical sentence

is , whereas the control is . This dataset measures occasion compatibility. There are however many train/dev/test set.

3) *Plausibility*: This dataset tests whether models distinguish probable events from physically impossible events. We adapt the probable–impossible pairs from Hu et al. [2025], following Lepori et al. [2026]. The train/dev/test pair counts are 56 and 14. Example pairs of sentences are given in the appendix.

CAA directions. Contrastive Activation Addition (CAA) represents a relation with a direction in a model's activation space [Rimsky et al., 2024]. At each tested layer, we subtract the final-token activation of every control item from that of its matched critical item, then average these differences over the training pairs. An evaluation item receives a scalar score by projection onto this direction of averaged difference; paired accuracy is the proportion of evaluation pairs for which the critical item scores higher.

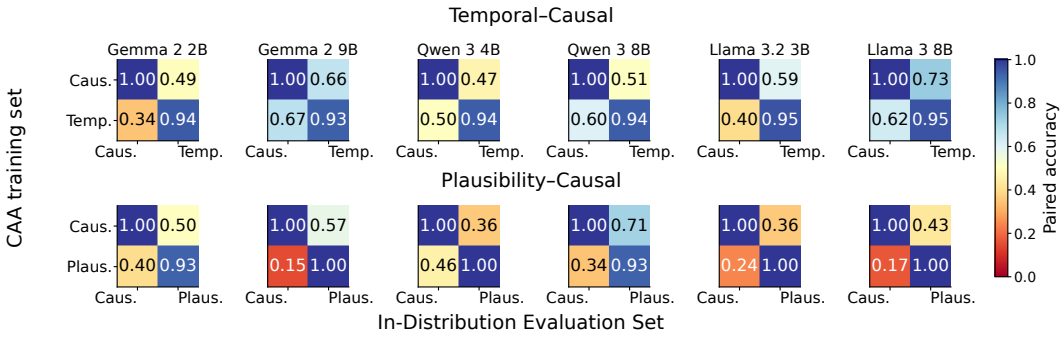


Figure 2: Cross-transfer paired accuracy between causal and occasional relations (top row) and causal and plausibility relations (bottom row). Within each heatmap, rows show the CAA training set and columns show the in-distribution evaluation set. **Causal CAA directions are largely relation-selective and distinct from occasional and plausibility directions.**

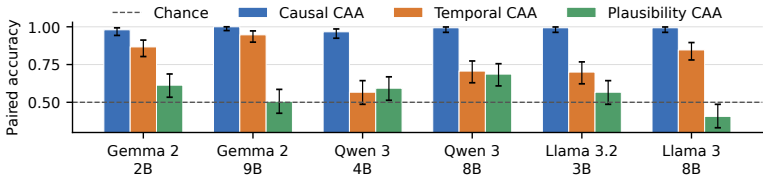


Figure 3: Paired accuracy of causal, occasional, and plausibility CAA directions on 150 unseen within-sentence causal inference pairs with 95% CIs. **Causal CAA directions generalize consistently to within-sentence implicit causal inference.** occasional and plausibility CAA directions transfer less consistently to within-sentence implicit causal items.

Results.

3.3 Generalization to Naturalistic Scenarios

Dataset.

Table 1: Mean paired differences in causal CAA projection in naturalistic causal scenarios. Positive values indicate that a demographic group has a greater mean projection than the white-male condition. Bolded values indicate statsitically significant difference from the white-male projection scores. **Demographic descriptions are associated with differences in causal CAA projections.** Minority females generally have larger projection raw mean scores than minority males along the implicit causal directions.

	Gemma 2 2B	Gemma 2 9B	Qwen3 4B	Qwen3 8B	Llama 3.2 3B	Llama 3 8B
Minority male − White male	**.41 ± .32**	**1.9 ± .40**	.073 ± .093	**.29 ± .17**	.025 ± .029	**.030 ± .020**
Minority female − White male	**.57 ± .32**	**2.3 ± .41**	**.15 ± .10**	**.39 ± .15**	**.069 ± .033**	**.060 ± .021**

Results.

4 Discussion

References

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A Behavioral Evaluation Details

Qualitative example. One item pairs the critical sentence *The executive who falsified quarterly revenue figures was fired* with the control sentence *The executive who wore a blue silk tie was fired*. The outcome is identical across the pair. Only the modifier changes: falsifying revenue figures plausibly explains the firing, whereas wearing a blue tie is incidental.

Yes/No prompt and score. For the critical sentence, the complete prompt is:

```
Context: The executive who falsified quarterly revenue figures was
fired.
Question: Does the fact that the executive falsified quarterly
revenue figures explain why the executive was fired? Answer Yes or
No:
```

The control prompt replaces both occurrences of *falsified quarterly revenue figures* with *wore a blue silk tie*. Let q denote a prompt and $a = (a_1, \ldots, a_T)$ a candidate answer token sequence. We compute its complete sequence probability as

$$P_\theta(a \mid q) = \exp\left(\sum_{t=1}^{T} \log P_\theta(a_t \mid q, a_{<t})\right). \tag{1}$$

We score the leading-space variants `yes`, `Yes`, and `YES`, and the corresponding three variants of `no`. If $\mathcal{Y}$ and $\mathcal{N}$ are these two sets, the Yes/No score is

$$p_{\text{yes}}(q) = \frac{\sum_{a \in \mathcal{Y}} P_\theta(a \mid q)}{\sum_{a \in \mathcal{Y} \cup \mathcal{N}} P_\theta(a \mid q)}. \tag{2}$$

7-point Likert prompt and score. For the same critical sentence, the complete prompt is:

```
Context: The executive who falsified quarterly revenue figures was
fired.
Question: How strongly does the fact that the executive falsified
quarterly revenue figures explain why the executive was fired?
Answer with one integer from 1 to 7, where 1 means definitely not,
4 means uncertain, and 7 means definitely yes:
```

We compute the complete sequence probability in Equation 1 for each leading-space answer `1`, …, `7`. We normalize over these seven candidates and take their expected value:

$$\widetilde{P}_\theta(k \mid q) = \frac{P_\theta(\ k \mid q)}{\sum_{j=1}^{7} P_\theta(\ j \mid q)}, \qquad r(q) = \sum_{k=1}^{7} k\, \widetilde{P}_\theta(k \mid q). \tag{3}$$

Surprisal score. For the critical member of the example pair, we score the continuation after the prefix *The executive who falsified quarterly revenue figures was fired*; the full sequence is *The executive who falsified quarterly revenue figures was fired, and I don't know why.* For continuation tokens $c = (c_1, \ldots, c_M)$ and stimulus prefix x, summed continuation surprisal is

$$S(c \mid x) = -\sum_{t=1}^{M} \log P_\theta(c_t \mid x, c_{<t}). \tag{4}$$

This sum includes every token in *", and I don't know why."*, including punctuation. A larger value means that the continuation is less expected.

Paired accuracy and sampling parameters. For each measure m, we compute

$$\mathrm{Acc}_{\mathrm{pair}}(m) = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \mathbf{1}\left[m(x_i^{\mathrm{critical}}) > m(x_i^{\mathrm{control}})\right]. \tag{5}$$

Here m is p_{yes}, r, or S; ties receive zero credit. Yes/No and Likert responses are not sampled. We score complete candidate sequences directly from the base model's raw logits with temperature 1; top-p and top-k sampling are therefore not applied.

B Raw CAA Projection Distributions

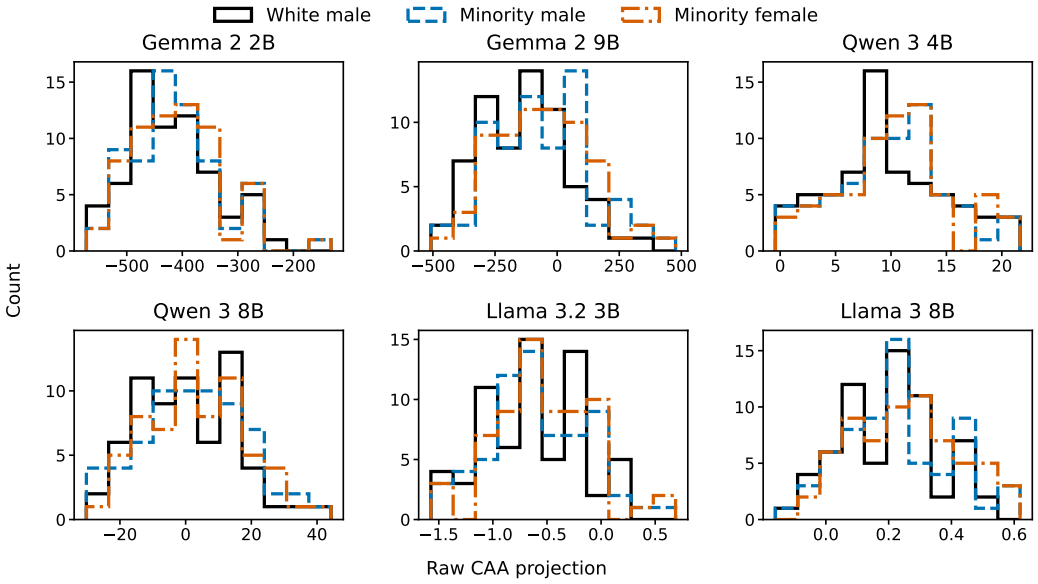


Figure 4: Raw causal CAA projection distributions for three matched demographic conditions across 65 scenarios per model. **The three conditions have substantially overlapping projection distributions in every model.** Colors and line styles distinguish the White-male, minority-male, and minority-female conditions.